

Topic 1: Pre-16th Century Philippines Reading Materials

List of Reading Materials:

1. "A New Species of Homo in the Late Pleistocene of the Philippines"
2. "Upper Pleistocene Homo sapiens From the Tabon Cave (Palawan, The Philippines): Description and Dating of New Discoveries"
3. "The Austronesians: Historical and Comparative Perspective"
4. "The Austronesians: Historical and Comparative Perspective"
5. "The Austronesians: Historical and Comparative Perspective"
6. "Soul Boats: A Filipino Journey of Self-Discovery"
7. CHAO JU-KUA'S DESCRIPTION OF THE PHILIPPINES
8. "Questions and Challenges in Philippine Prehistory"
9. *Kalantiaw: The Code that Never Was*
10. The First People of Sulu

INTRODUCTION FOR PRE-16TH CENTURY READINGS

Jose Rhommel B. Hernandez, Ph.D.

The following are ten readings discussing certain aspects of the Pre-16th Century Philippines. The excerpts are discussions of archaeological and historical studies on particular topics concerning the Philippines. The first excerpt is from the article of archaeologists Armand Salvador Mijares and his team discussing the initial finds in Callao Cave in Peñablanca, Cagayan. These findings would later on be the foundations in establishing the human remains as the *Homo luzonensis*. This is currently acknowledged as a species of Homo and thus establishing the Philippines as a part of the archaeological map of human evolution.

The second excerpt is from the article of archaeologist Eusebio Dizon and his team on the human remains from the Tabon Cave in Palawan. Discovered in the 1960s by the archaeologist Robert Fox, Dizon and his team went further in reassessing the area resulting in new dates and eleven more human remains. The readings three, four and five are from the study of Peter Bellwood and company regarding the Austronesians. The excerpts study different aspects of the migration and settlement of the Austronesian in the Philippines and Southeast Asia. Included also are the Pacific Islands and Madagascar near the African Coast.

Reading Sixth is from the work of archaeologist Alfredo E. Evangelista providing a glimpse on the life of ancient Filipinos based on the so-called “soul boats.” These “soul boats” are actually wooden coffins shaped like boats and are found in different archaeological sites in the Philippines. At around the same time of these “soul boats” is the document written by a Chinese bureaucrat named Chao Ju-Kua. The document is provided herein as Reading number 7 detailing some contacts made by the author with the peoples of Ma-yi which archaeologists and historians recognize as either Manila or Mindoro.

Readings eight and nine are studies dealing with methodological problems in the field of Philippine Prehistory. Reading eight is from the lecture of F. Landa Jocano on the different problems in the study of Philippine Prehistory while Reading nine is from the study of historian William Henry Scott on the Maragtas. Reading ten is a transcript of a story regarding the first people of Sulu. Mythical at most but it shows the understanding of a group of people regarding their past.

“A New Species of Homo in the Late Pleistocene of the Philippines”

This is an excerpt of the seminal article on the discoveries made by archaeologist Armand Salvador Mijares and his team (Florent Detroit, Philip Piper, Rainier Grun, Peter Bellwood, Maxime Aubert, Guillaume Champion, Nida Cuevas, Alexandra De Leon, Eusebio Dizon) in the Callao Cave in Peñablanca, Cagayan. This particular study details the discovery of the Right Metatarsal 3 (RMT3) of a human being in Callao Cave, Cagayan. Now designated as the *Homo luzonensis*, the date of the said remains is 67,000 years Before Present. Comparisons were made with the other human remains found in Southeast Asia.

Excerpt:

Hominin movement into Island Southeast Asia has always been problematic due to the lack of well-dated human remains. The humid tropical environment of Island Southeast Asia contributes to the problems of bone preservation. Early modern human remains have, however, been recovered in Niah Cave in Sarawak, Malaysian Borneo, dating to 42 ka, and from Tabon Cave in Palawan dating to 47 plus/minus 10/11 ka. Borneo is located on the sunda shelf and was possibly joined by dry land to Sumatra, Java and Peninsular Malaysia during periods of lowered sea level in the Pleistocene. The island of Palawan may have been intermittently attached to northeastern Borneo when sea levels reached their minima during the most extreme climatic phases. Thus, migrating human populations could have reached both islands without necessarily requiring a sea crossing.

To reach the rest of the Philippine archipelago and other islands in the Wallacean group (e.g., Sulawesi, Flores, Timor) that were never attached to either mainland Asia or Australasia (Sahul), open sea crossings were required. The Lake Mungo remains from Australia dating to 40 plus/minus 2 ka are evidence that modern humans were capable of making early sea crossings. *Homo floresiensis*, discovered on the islands of Flores, Indonesia, is another hominin that managed to cross the Wallace line. While its remains are only dated to 18-38 ka, Flores also has stone artifact assemblages suggesting that a hominin of unknown affinity reached the island more than 800 ka years ago. Our recent excavations (2007) in Callao Cave have produced what is probably one of the earliest hominin fossils east of Wallace's Line, from the island of Luzon, northern Philippines.

The Callao Cave metatarsal indicates that species of hominin crossed water gaps between Sundaland and Wallacea to reach northern Luzon by 67,000 years ago. The specimen leaves us with a conundrum—in size, it compares with modern Negrito populations, but a few morphological features are unusual. A comprehensive analysis of size and shape characteristics, including comparisons with larger samples of *Homo sapiens* and fossil species of the genus *Homo*, is now needed.

Provisionally attributed to a rather small-bodied *Homo sapiens*, the Callao MT3 documents the presence of a hominin species on the island of Luzon as early as 67 ka, and is testimony to a capability to colonize new territories across open sea gaps. The Philippine specimen also indicates that Flores was not the only island in Wallacea to be occupied by hominins more than 50,000 years ago.

The discoveries of Callao Cave also raise some other important questions about the cultural behavior of these early colonizers of the Philippine Archipelago. For example, even though there is evidence of butchery in the animal bone assemblage, not a single stone implement was recovered, suggesting perhaps the use of an alternative technology. To answer such questions, more archaeological research in the caves of karstic limestone formations of the Philippines is required.

**“Upper Pleistocene Homo sapiens From the Tabon Cave (Palawan, The Philippines):
Description and Dating of New Discoveries”**

The following is an excerpt of a collaborative study between Filipino and French scholars on the much discussed and cited human remains of the so-called Tabon Man. The original discovery was made in the 1960s by the archaeologist Robert Fox. The authors of the study Upper Pleistocene Homo sapiens from the Tabon cave (Palawan, The Philippines): description and dating of new discoveries are Florent Detroit (French), Eusebio Dizon (Filipino), Christophe Falgueres (French), Sebastien Hameau (French), Wilfredo Ronquillo (Filipino) and Francois Semah (French). The study reassessed the discoveries made by Fox in the 1960s and resulted to new dates and yielded eleven more human remains. The original article was published by Science Direct in 2004 under the category Human Paleontology and Prehistory.

Excerpt:

The Tabon Cave is located in the southwest coast of the Palawan Island. The site has been thoroughly studied in the 1960s by Robert Fox from the National Museum of the Philippines.

Owing to the discovery of long-lasting human occupation layers, abundant lithic industries and human fossils, the Tabon Cave is frequently quoted as one of the most important upper Pleistocene sites from insular Southeast Asia. Indeed, it is worth noting that the human fossil record of this large geographical area still suffers a major gap corresponding approximately to the Upper Pleistocene period. Thus, the Tabon human fossils are among the very scarce specimens that could candidate to stand chronologically between the latest Indonesian Homo erectus (such as Solo Man) and the earliest Homo sapiens from insular Southeast Asia. The age of the former group is still highly disputed, from more than 100,000 to least that 50,000 years BP, whereas the oldest anatomically modern Homo sapiens known up to now only date back to the very late Upper Pleistocene and Early Holocene period.

Despite their high significance, the human remains recovered from the Tabon Cave had not been described and published after their discovery. Nor there have been attempts to answer the numerous questions arising from the R. Fox's pioneering work until recent fieldwork was undertaken by the Archaeological Division of the National Museum of the Philippines.

A scientific collaboration between this institution and the Prehistory Department of the *Museum national d'Histoire naturelle* (Paris) resulted as a first step in the exhaustive paleoanthropological description of these historical human fossil finds and direct dating of the Tabon frontal bone.

All the human fossils recovered from the Tabon cave, including the early discoveries of the 1960s show a similar aspect (reddish-brown color of the bones and abundant concretions on the bone surface) that indicates that they probably underwent several fossilization processes.

Only a robust mandibular fragment from the earlier excavations appears to be considerably more mineralized than the other fossils.

From the whole human fossil record, two specimens obviously differ from others. These are respectively the very robust mandibular fragment and the immature partial atlas. All other specimens (frontal bone, mandibular fragment, ulna epiphysis, tibia diaphysis, fragments of fibula, partial calcaneus, metatarsal, proximal phalange and lumbar vertebra) show medium to small proportions and morphological features that correspond to an overall weakly built anatomically modern *Homo sapiens*. Therefore, it seems possible that they belonged to a single individual and from a strictly anatomical point of view, the minimal number of human individuals is 3 for the Tabon cave. However, the dating results, pointing to a discrepancy between the frontal bone, one of the fragmentary mandible and the tibia indicate a probable higher number of individuals.

Questions arising from these new discoveries deal with the relationships that could be traced between the specimens of the fossil record. From a biological point of view, one may ask whether the fossils unearthed represent one or more prehistoric human groups and, in a broader perspective, what are their phylogenetic relationship with other fossil *Homo sapiens* known from insular Southeast Asian sites such as Niah (Borneo), Moh Khiew (peninsular Thailand) and the Gunung Sequ are (East Java).

The association of specimens exhibiting respectively large and small overall dimensions points to the presence of at least two distinct *Homo sapiens* morphologies in the Tabon Cave during the Upper Pleistocene times. It could be the result of a taphonomic association of two actually distinct groups of *Homo sapiens* (biologically and or/chronologically) or only reflect the presence of a single group characterized by a high sexual dimorphism. However, the former hypothesis seems currently more likely. The unnumbered left mandibular fragment shows an obviously more primitive overall morphology than any other individuals (large dimensions associated with a series of primitive morphological features). And, as a first impression, the pattern of association of morphological features documented by other specimens indicates to some extent affinities with Australian fossil *Homo sapiens*. For instance, the conspicuous morphology of the supra-orbital complex of the frontal bone, which combines projecting glabella and supraciliary arches with rather thin and clearly separated lateral trigones.

“The Austronesians: Historical and Comparative Perspective”

This is an excerpt of *The Austronesians in History: Common Origins and Diverse Transformations* from the book edited by Peter Bellwood, *The Austronesians: Historical and Comparative Perspectives* (2006). It gives a general background on the Austronesian expansion. The Austronesians is a linguistic group recognized as the immediate ancestors of Filipinos as well as other Southeast Asians. Bellwood, a British Archaeologist who was educated in Cambridge and is one of the leading experts on the subject, effectively summarized in this brief excerpt the basic information on the expansion of different Austronesian groups from Easter Island near Chile in South America until Madagascar.

Excerpt:

It is necessary to return again to the linguistic evidence in order to plot the geographical axes of expansion of early An-speaking peoples. Beginning with Pre-Austronesian level, a number of claims have been made for Asian genetic relationships between An and other Asian mainland language families. Perhaps the best known of these claims is the Austro-Thai hypothesis of Paul Benedict (1975; Reid 1984-5), which postulates that the Tai-Kadai and Austronesian language or chain of languages spoken on the southern Chinese mainland. Benedict has suggested a number of important vocabulary reconstructions for this ancestral language, including terms for field, wet-field (for rice or taro), garden, rice, sugarcane, cattle, water buffalo, axe and canoe. The overlap between this list and that presented above for Hemudu and other coastal southern Chinese Neolithic sites needs little emphasis. One has to consider very seriously the possibility that the initial expansions of Austronesians and TaiKadai languages (and probably also Austroasiaic) began among Neolithic rice-cultivating communities in China south of the Yangzi. The archeological record agrees very well and provides a date range for initial developments between 5000-4000 BC.

Moving beyond Austro-Tai into Austronesian proper, the reconstruction of linguistic prehistory which is most widely used today is that postulated by Robert Blust (1984-5). This is based on a “family-tree” of subgroups and a hierarchy of proto-languages extending from Proto-Austronesian (Pan) forwards in time. Reduced to its essentials, Blust’s reconstruction favors a geographical expansion beginning in Taiwan (the location of the oldest Austronesian languages including Pan), then encompassing the Philippines, Borneo and Sulawesi, and finally bifurcating, one branch moving west to Java, Sumatra and Malaya, the other moving east into Oceania (see Darrell Tyron’s more detailed summary in this volume).

A wealth of linguistic detail can be added to this framework but here I will restrict myself to some implications of broad historical and cultural significance. During the linguistic stage before the break up of Pan it would appear that some colonies with an agricultural

economy moved across the Formosa Strait to the Chinese mainland to Taiwan (Mainland 1984, 1992). Here developed the Austronesian languages (s), and after a few centuries some of these languages made the first moves into Luzon and the Philippines. This movement led to the division of Austronesian into its two major subgroups, Formosan and Malayo-Polynesian (or Extra-Formosan). The reconstructed Pan vocabulary, which relates generally to this early Taiwan-Luzon phase, indicates an economy well suited for marginal tropical latitudes with cultivation of rice, millet, sugarcane, domestication of dogs and pigs, and the use of some kind of watercraft.

As a result of further colonizing movements through the Philippines into Borneo, Sulawesi and the Moluccas, the Malayo-Polynesian (MP) subgroup eventually separated into its several lower-order Western and Central-Eastern branches. The break-up of Central-Eastern MP probably occurred initially in the Moluccas, and Eastern MP contains all the Austronesian languages of the Pacific Islands apart from some in western Micronesia. The vocabulary of Proto-Malayo-Polynesia (PMP), a linguistic entity which might have been located somewhere in the Philippines, is of great interest because it contains a number of tropical economic indicators which were absent in the earlier and more northerly Pan stage. These include, according to Blust (1984-5), *Colocasia taro*, breadfruit, banana, yam, sago and coconut. Their presences may reflect a shift away from rice, a plant initially adapted to sub-tropical latitudes, towards a greater dependence on tubers and fruits in equatorial latitudes (Bellwood 1980a, 1985). The PMP vocabulary also has terms for pottery, sailing canoes and several components of substantial houses (Zorc 1994).

It may now be asked how the archeological record relates to this reconstruction of the directions and cultural components of Austronesian expansion. Specific archeological cultures cannot logically be equated with specific ancestral languages in prehistoric time. However, the appearance of certain technological and economic components of Pan and PMP can be searched for profitably in the archeological record of the area now occupied by Austronesian speakers. As already indicated, it is a reasonable inference that both Pan and PMP represent agricultural societies who, amongst other things, grew rice, made pots, lived in well-made timber houses and kept domesticated pigs. As it happens, direct material evidence of all these items survives in the archeological records of the islands of Southeast Asia, and all of them make an initial appearance in widespread excavated sites between about 4000 and 1500 BC. Furthermore, their appearances (especially pottery) show a time trend – earliest in the northerly regions of China, Taiwan and Luzon and progressively later as one moves southwards into equatorial Indonesia and western Oceania (Springs 1989). Given this seeming correlation between the linguistic and archeological records (Bellwood 1985), we may hypothesize a direct association with the dispersal of the Austronesian language speakers, rather than dispersal of the cultural items by diffusion alone.

The Neolithic archeological records in Taiwan began around 3000-4000 BC with archeological assemblages of southern Chinese type, presumably carried initially by small

groups of agricultural settlers across the Formosa Strait from Fujian (Tsang 1992). Characteristic artifacts of the oldest sites include cord-marked pottery, polished stone adzes and slate spear points. Other items such as slate-reaping knives and baked clay spindle whorls (for spinning thread for weaving) perhaps arrived a little later. By 3000 BC in Taiwan there is evidence for rice and from pollen records for inland clearance for agriculture.

Between 2500 and 1500 BC related archeological assemblages with plain or red slipped pottery, rather than the older Taiwan cord-marked type, appeared in coastal and favorable inland regions of the Philippines, Sulawesi, northern Borneo, Halmahera and (with domestic pigs) to as far southeast as Timor. No sites of this period have yet been reported from the large islands of western Indonesia but research on pollen history in the highlands of western Java and Sumatra suggests that some fairly intensive forest clearance for agriculture was underway there by at least 2000 BC, and probably earlier (Flenly 1988). In the equatorial latitudes of Indonesia there may also have been a shift away from rice cultivation towards a much greater dependence on the tropical fruit and tuber crops listed above for PMP vocabulary. No cereals were ever introduced into the Pacific Islands, with the exception of rice to the Marians.

By 1500 BC, therefore, agricultural colonists had spread from Taiwan to the western borders of Melanesia. The continuing expansion through Melanesia western Polynesia, represented by the Lapita culture, seems to have been even more rapid than preceding movements, perhaps because food producing (as opposed to purely foraging) Papuan-speaking populations were already occupying some coastal regions of the large islands at New Guinea, the Bismarcks and the Solomons. Finely decorated Lapita pottery has been found in coastal or offshore island sites from the Admiralties in the west to Samoa in the east, a distance of about 5000 kilometers (see following chapters). This Lapita expansion occurred between 16000 to 1000 BC and to north and east of the Solomons it involved, for the first sustained period in the Austronesian prehistory, the settlement of these uninhabited regions continued onwards (Irwin 1992), ultimately to incorporate all the islands of Polynesia and Micronesia and on the other side of the world, Madagascar.

“The Austronesians: Historical and Comparative Perspective”

This reading is a continuation of the previous excerpt from Peter Bellwood’s study on the Austronesians. In this part, the focus is on the rationale behind the expansion and migration of the Austronesians. For this, he cites seven possible reasons based on evidences of one of the most rapid colonization which occurred in the “Prehistoric agricultural word.”

The rate of which the early Austronesian colonization occurred must surely be one of the most rapid on record from the prehistoric agricultural world, although admittedly much of it was across sea rather than into large and absorbent land mass. It was probably not caused simply by an over-reliance on land-hungry shifting cultivation, an explanation which I have favored in the past (Bellwood 1980b), but by a number of different stimuli. These include, not necessarily in order of significance:

- (1) Continuous population growth based on an agricultural supply, allowing a continuous generation by generation “budding-off” of new families into new terrain.
- (2) The inherent transportability and reproducibility of the agricultural economy to support colonizing propagules, especially on resource-poor small islands.
- (3) The presence of a deep and absorbent “frontier zone” available for colonization adjacent to the area of early Austronesians agricultural development, occupied purely by foraging populations (i.e. Taiwan and the Philippines in the early days of expansion), most of whom presumably have shown little interest to adapting a systematic agricultural economy for themselves.
- (4) A developing tradition of sailing-canoe construction and navigation.
- (5) A predilection for rapid coastal movement and exploration, probably to find the most favorable environments for cultivation and sheltered inshore fishing, and thus promoting a colonization pattern of wide-ranging settlements followed, often only centuries later, by territorial in-filling.
- (6) A culturally-sanctioned desire to found new settlements in order to become a revered or even deified founder ancestor in the genealogies of future generations (presumably this evolved hand-in-hand with the colonization process itself);
- (7) A desire to found new resources of raw materials for “prestige goods” exchange networks.

Not all of these stimuli were presented before the process of Austronesian expansion began; those listed at (4) and (6) particular surely evolve in part as a result of process itself, as might (7) if it was of major significance as an agency of colonization (which I doubt). However, it is my suspicion that the top root of the expansion process, a sine qua non, was the possession of a systematic agricultural economy capable of supporting continuous population growth.

The specific here may ask why, it agriculturally induced population growth was so important; all early agricultural peoples did not simply expand in this way. I would reply that perhaps the majority of them did, and this becomes highly significant if one takes the view that early agriculture was an uncommon development in a primary form (i.e as a result purely of local evolution from an indigenous foraging cultural base), restricted to only a very few specific environmental and floral/faunal regions of central Africa, southwestern Asia, China these early expansions, flourishing in a lightly populated, healthy and resource rich world, which laid the bases for the distributions of many of the major language families of the old World today. The environment plays major roles in the evolution of agriculture from a primary form.

“The Austronesians: Historical and Comparative Perspective”

The excerpt reading below is Peter Bellwood’s summary and periodization of the Austronesian expansion. The periods are based of course on the major transformations of Austronesian societies upon settling in the Island Southeast Asia. The summary is useful inasmuch as it gives students of history a tool for understanding the different periods of transformation in Philippine as well as Southeast Asian prehistory.

Excerpt:

Perhaps I may finally sketch, in brief, some of the major transformations, which I believe prehistoric Austronesian societies underwent in Island Southeast Asia between about 1000 BC and AD 1.

- (1) 4000-3500 BC; Initial Austronesian expansion to Taiwan; selded cereal and tuber agriculture, limited seafaring from South China.
- (2) 3000 BC; Proto-Austronesian expansion to the northern Philippines; improvement of seafaring technology; stylistic shift from cord-marked to plain or red-slipped pottery.
- (3) Late third and second millennia BC; Proto-Malayo-Polynesian dispersal from the southern Philippines to Borneo, Sulawesi and the Moluccas, equatorial enhancement of fruit and tuber production vis-à-vis cereals, except in more southerly and climatically-seasonal islands such as Java where rice is presumably always maintained its prominence. One development of great interest which might have occurred about this time might have been the beginnings of forager adaptations to the rainforests of Borneo and Sumatra (see Sather, this volume).
- (4) Second/first millennia BC? Beginnings of mobile maritime (proto-sea nomad?) adaptations around the Sulu and Sulawesi Seas (of Bellwood 1989 for a maritime economy with longdistance exchange at Bukit Tengkorak, Sabah, around 1000 BC), and possibly elsewhere. These, in turn might have laid some of the seafaring groundwork for:
- (5) Middle and late second millennium BC: Lapita colonization of Remote Oceania to as far as Tonga and Samoa. Seafaring skills were here developed further amidst an ever-expanding vista of uninhabited islands, but with few opportunities to settle on large western Melanesian islands (especially New Guinea) already inhabited by Papuan-speaking peoples.
- (6) Second/first millennia BC? Austronesian settlement in Vietnam and Malaya, in both regions in competition with pre-existing agriculturists.
- (7) 500 BC and after. Introduction of bronze and iron metallurgy into Island Southeast Asia. Dong Son drums were also traded from Vietnam into the Sunda islands, extending from Sumatra to the Southern Moluccas.

Perhaps the metallurgical introductions listed last above were no more than side effects of something much greater; the incorporation of parts of Island Southeast Asia into a network of Old World trade stretching from the Mediterranean to eastern Indonesia. Indian pottery of c200 BC to AD 200 has now been unearthed in Java and Bali (Ardika and Bellwood 1991), and at the time the archeological records reveals a hitherto-unprecedented level of similarity in local pottery design and manufacture across a huge region which includes coastal regions of the Sunda islands, borneo, Sulawesi and the Philippines. It is possible that a great deal of linguistic assimilation of prior (especially Old Malay itself), Javanese and perhaps other languages or subgroups (cf. Blust 1991 for the possibility of some kind of linguistic leveling in the Philippines). By AD 500 the Western Austronesian area was perhaps a zone of continuously flourishing inter-island travel and trade, with the odd proviso that divorced into an almost total isolation from the rest of Island Southeast Asia. Such are the enigmas of history.

“Soul Boats: A Filipino Journey of Self-Discovery”

The following is an excerpt of an article originally published in the multi-volume *Philippine Heritage* in 1978. This particular edition was taken from the book by Alfredo E. Evangelista himself entitled “Soul Boats: A Filipino Journey of Self-Discovery” published in 2001. Alfredo E. Evangelista is the former head of the Anthropology Division of the National Museum of the Philippines and was its Deputy Director until his retirement in 1989. He studied anthropology at the University Chicago and was under the tutelage of archaeologist Wilhelm Solheim and H. Otley Beyer in his excavations in the Neolithic settlements in the Bondoc Peninsula, Masbate and later in Romblon. The essay discussed some of the archaeological evidences of jar burials and coffin burials in the Late Neolithic period in the Philippines. Of particular interest is the discussion on the so-called “soul boats” or wooden coffins shaped like boats found in different archaeological sites in the Philippines.

Excerpt:

Archaeological evidence and early ethnographic accounts by Spanish missionaries indicate that the disposal of the dead in hollowed-out wood has had a long tradition in the Philippines. It developed side by side with other forms of burial including the inhumation of corpses wrapped in mats or tree bark, and interment of corpses or skeletal remains (in jar containers) in caves or under the ground or in the open air. Where only the skulls were interred the container used were ornamented square boxes of either wood or baked clay, or simply slightly deep plates of both high and low-fired clay. In a few instances, as in a Central Philippine burial cave, coffin and jar-burial were practiced simultaneously.

Generally, the dug-out coffins were provided with lids triangular in cross-section, giving them the appearance of roofed boats. Consequently, they have been called “boat coffins.” Extrapolation from ethnographic data referred to these coffins as “soul boats” used by the spirit to sail to the world of the dead. Archaeological evidence appears to support this stance. Even where the bones were those of adults, in a practice termed secondary burial, the elongated shape of the coffin and its pyramidal roof were retained. Its overall length, though, was reduced, the coffin appearing at first glance to be a child’s. In a rock shelter in eastern Masbate Island, for example, is a sawed-off banca with human skeletal remains in it. Being of recent interment, the burial boat was left undisturbed.

It appears further that the idea of burial in a box is as old as burial in a jar, as gleaned from recent archaeological activity in the Tabon Caves of Quezon, Palawan. In one of the chambers of a cave named Manunggul, a Late Neolithic jar-burial assemblage (C14 date: ca. 1000 B.C.) was carefully excavated and studied. Almost a hundred funerary pottery vessels and their associated artifacts constituted the assemblage. An outstanding find was a magnificently

decorated burial jar which had a cover featuring a “ship-of-the-dead with the figures of two humans riding in it. This is the oldest evidence linking spirits with watercraft. Another remarkable find in this same cave was a pottery coffin, 73 centimeters long and 34 centimeters wide. This is the first known coffin made of pottery.

In 1966, a report reached the Museum regarding a newly discovered burial using coffins. The informant claimed that he had explored the diorite formation for hidden pirates’ treasure, about which he had read so much in books, and came upon a hole left by a fallen rock. He peeped into this hole and vaguely discerned a group of boxes that turned out to be coffins with human bones, ornaments and highly-fired ceramic wares. He collected some of the latter and brought them to Manila as proof of his discovery.

Of the 22 coffins counted, 17 were in perfect or good condition, the remainder being badly disintegrated, due to the depredations of the elements and termites. In common with the previous collections, the material for the coffins of the new site was also hardwood. Also common in both sites was the employment of the serpent motif carved at both ends of the lids. In some instances, the rendering was abstract, but in most cases the head, eyes, jaws and teeth were carved in the round. One head had a hollowed-out set of eyes, suggesting that artificial eyeballs were once embedded in them. In a number of cases, the tongue of the serpent jutted out or in its place was a carved figure of a human being halfway in the serpent’s jaws, so that only the pelvic area and the lower limbs showed. Other motifs were those of the monkey and an unidentifiable four-legged animal, although these were not as commonly used as the serpent.

The coffins had been carved out of a species of hardwood locally called *mulawin* (*Vitex parvilora*), which was still obtainable in the island. From the coffins that still contained the skeletal remains of adults, it was concluded that the mode of burial was secondary, otherwise the corpses would not have fit into the coffins. In addition to the coffins, the workers recovered two Chinese brown-glazed stoneware jars that contained the bone remains of a juvenile in one and of an adult in the other. The site was evidence of the practice of jar-burial existing side by side with coffin-burial.

If the coffins and the bones were well preserved, so were the artifacts. The associated potteries from South China and Siam appeared to have just left the factory. As well-preserved were the beads of carnelian and glass, the bracelet of trochus shell and the ornaments of gold. Particularly exciting in the matter of preservation were the perishable artifacts that survived the elements. Of the Chinese jarlets, one still had a wooden stopper. Other perishable items included a coconut-shell cup bamboo artifact, and combs and bracelets of turtle shell. No other pre-Spanish site has so far yielded such objects.

CHAO JU-KUA'S DESCRIPTION OF THE PHILIPPINES

The Following is an excerpt of Chao Ju-Kua's Account of Certain Barbarians written ca. 1280. Chao Ju-Kua is a Chinese bureaucrat who travelled extensively in the world known to the Chinese in the 13th century. The reading was originally published as a translation into Spanish by Jose Clemente Zulueta in 1901. It contains descriptions of places and the peoples of Ma-yi which archaeologists and historians recognize as either Manila or Mindoro. The essay shows the early trading activities of the ancient Filipinos and their connection to the known world at that time. It also showed certain characters of the Filipinos as traders in the East and Southeast Asia.

Excerpt:

The country Ma-yi is located north of Poni. About one thousand families inhabit the shores of a river which has many windings. The natives dress in linen, wearing clothes that look like sheets; or they cover their bodies with *sarongs*. In the thick woods are scattered copper statues of Buddha, but no one can tell the origin of those statues. Pirates seldom visit those districts. When [Chinese] merchantmen arrive at that port they cast anchor at a place [called] the place of Mandarins. That place serves them as a market, or site where the products of their countries are exchanged. When a vessel has entered into the port, (its captain) offers presents consisting of white parasols and umbrellas which serve them for daily use. The traders are obliged to observe these civilities in order to be able to count on the favor of those gentlemen.

In order to trade, the savage traders are assembled, and have the goods carried in baskets, and although the bearers are often unknown, none of the goods are ever lost or stolen. The savage traders transport these goods to other islands, and thus eight- or nine-months pass until they have obtained other goods of value equivalent to those that have been received [from the Chinese]. This forces the traders of the vessel to delay their departure, and hence it happens that the vessels that maintain trade with Ma-yi are the ones that take the longest to return to their country.

The most noteworthy places of this country are: San-hsii; Pai-pu-yen; Pu-li-lu, which is located near San-hsii; Li-yin-tung; Lin-hsin; and Li-han. The products of that country are yellow wax, cotton, pearls, shells, betel nuts, and jute [*yu-ta*] textiles. Foreign traders import porcelain, commercial gold, iron vases for perfumes, leaden objects, glass, pearls of all colors, and iron needles.

San-hsii, or the "Three Islands," belong to Ma-yi. Their names are Ka-may-en, Pa-lao-yu, and Pa-chi-neng. Each of these islands is inhabited by its own races, who are scattered

throughout them. But upon the arrival of the vessels, the natives assemble in order to trade. Their general name is San-hsü. Their customs are about the same as those observed in Ma-yi. Each tribe consists of about one thousand families. The country has many lofty hills and rugged rocks which rise up like gigantic walls. The houses of the inhabitants are built of bamboo. The high region of the country has few springs, but the women go to the banks of the rivulets and creeks and thence back to the mountain bearing on their heads two or three jars filled with water, a load that does not bother them. They ascend the mountain with the same ease as if they were on the level. The interior of the valleys is inhabited by a race called Hay-tan. They are of short stature, have round yellow eyes, curly hair, and their teeth can be plainly seen [showing] from between their lips. They build their nests in the forking of the branches of trees, and a family, usually consisting of from three to five individuals, lives in each nest. They wander through the fastnesses of the thickets and invisible to the sight, shoot their arrows at the passers-by. On this account they are greatly feared. When the trader takes them a porcelain jar, they bow and take it, and then uttering cries of joy, run away with it.

When foreign traders come to one of their villages, they must not touch the ground, but must remain aboard their vessel, which is anchored in the middle of the current and announce their presence by beat of drum. Thereupon the savage traders approach in their light craft, in which they carry cotton, yellow wax, strange cloth, cocoanuts, onions, and fine mats, and all those things they offer for sale in exchange [for the articles of the Chinese]. In case of misunderstanding in the price of the goods, it is necessary to summon the chief of the traders of that place, so that he may present himself in person, and arrange the tariff to the satisfaction of all. The imported objects are silk umbrellas, porcelain, and a kind of basket woven from rattan. Foreign traders receive twice or thrice the value of the goods sold aboard, in order to serve them as a bond of security. Afterward the foreign traders disembark and perform their contracts there, and then return to their vessel. The goods pledged by the natives remain only three or four days aboard the vessel, and then after the expiration of that term they are restored [to shore]. Then the vessel visits another village of the savages, for the coast villages of the Three Islands do not have one common jurisdiction. The hills keep the winds from the vessels during the continuance of the northeast monsoon. But when the southwest monsoon begins, the dashing of the waves against the coast is so violent that great currents are formed that do not allow the vessels to remain at anchor. This is the reason why those who maintain trade with the Three Islands delay their return for four or five months. Porcelain, black damask, and other silk fabrics, pearls of various colors, lead, fishnets, and tin are imported. Pu-li-lu is near Three Islands. Its villages are very densely populated, but its inhabitants are very cruel and inclined to piracy. The sea is full of reefs and shoals, and the beach has rocks which are indented like dry wood, and their points are very sharp like those of swords and spears. In order that the vessels may reach that country, they take a long and circuitous route, in order to avoid those shoals. There are corals there, but it is very difficult to get them. The popular and trading customs are the same as those which exist at the Three Islands.

“Questions and Challenges in Philippine Prehistory”

F. LANDA JOCANO

The following is an excerpt of the seminal lecture of Filipino anthropologist F. Landa Jocano entitled *Questions and Challenges in Philippine Prehistory* which was originally published in the *Historical Bulletin* in the years 1983 and 1984. F. Landa Jocano holds an MA and PhD in Anthropology from the University of Chicago. He taught at the Department of Anthropology at the University of the Philippines where he later served as its chairperson. He also taught at the UP Asian Center and the UP Institute of Philippine Studies. The particular excerpt below is from the compilation made by N.M.R. Santillan and M.B.P. Conde entitled *Kasaysayan at Kamalayan: Mga Piling Akda Ukol sa Diskursong Pangkasaysayan* published in 1998. Jocano’s essay discussed the discipline of Philippine Prehistory and is basically a synthesis of his findings during his years of research. It is in this essay that he questioned the commonly held Wave Migration Theory and proposed his own Core Population Theory.

Excerpt:

The inner value of scholarship is change. We cannot hold on to old ideas when new empirical evidence no longer supports them. We cannot afford to continuously make the same historical inferences from old data when new theoretical orientation leads us to advance new hypotheses and to other better interpretations. Hypotheses are developed because we want to have a clearer knowledge of the relationships between the data or sets of data we are studying.

As a general alternative to earlier ways of looking at Philippine Prehistory, as well as our relations with the other peoples of Island Southeast Asia, the following proposals are advanced:

1. The peoples of Island Southeast Asia belonged to the same population. This is what we call the core population. It grew out of the combination of human evolution which occurred in Island Southeast Asia about 1.9 million years ago, as evidenced by the fossil materials recovered from different parts of the region, and the movements of other peoples from Asia mainland during prehistoric times.
2. The core population share a common cultural orientation as evidenced by similarities in their tool tradition that included both flake and core implements and their complex ceramic industries that included cord-making and designs made on the plastic surface of

unfired pottery with a carved paddle. Others shared cultural elements consist of similar ornaments, pendants, house types, belief systems, ritual complex and funerary practices.

3. The configuration of these shared elements into a common way of life is what we call the base culture. It emerged from similar responses people made to similar geographical conditions, climate, fauna and flora. Certainly, there were variations due mainly to the relative isolation of some islands. But as a whole, there were (as there are still) more things that ancient men in the region held in common than those which they did not.
4. None of these ancient men could be categorized under any of the historically identified ethnic groups (i.e., Malays, Indonesians and Filipinos) today. The Western colonizers were the ones who fragmented the population into ethnic groups as they partitioned the region into their respective colonies. Thus, variations in cultural and historical experiences started to become clear-cut as the colonizers defined the boundaries of their territorial trusts. The British popularized, in scholarship the term Malay to characterize the group of people they encountered in the Malay Peninsula. The Portuguese, the Germans and the Dutch introduced the Indonesians to the Western World. The Spaniards strongly worked for the conversion of Filipinos (formerly Indios) to Christianity. Later on the Americans came and further differentiated the Filipinos from their Southeast Asian cousins.
5. In this connection, the explanation of the peopling of the Philippines through a series of waves of migration, as documented by folk history like the Maragtas, has to be reconsidered. The undue credit given to the Malays as the original settlers of the region and dominant cultural transmitter must be corrected. The movements of peoples during prehistoric times were complex events which cannot be explained by the simple sequential migrations of people from one area to another. Emerging from a common population with the same base culture, the Malays, Filipinos and Indonesians are co-equal as ethnic groups in the region of Island Southeast Asia, without any one of them being racially or culturally dominant.

In conclusion, we hope that the base culture hypothesis may lead us to a concerted effort towards better understanding of Philippine prehistory and enlightened cooperation among the peoples of Island Southeast Asia. Now that our common heritage has been defined, we also look forward to the emergence of regional consciousness and a common (regional and racial) designation that none of the present names is capable of encompassing. May the base culture idea equalize the roles of each group in the region, without one having to appear dominant simply because of an allegation, without any supporting evidence, that they were the ascendants and originators of cultures.

Kalantiaw: The Code that Never Was

The reading is an excerpt of William Henry Scott's article entitled *Kalantiaw: The Code that Never Was*." Scott is known to be the American historian who first questioned the existence of the Maragtas and the Wave Migration Theory which was partially based on the said document. He specializes on the 16th century Philippine History as well as the northern Philippine ethnic groups. His dissertation which he defended in the late 1960s at the University of Sto. Thomas entitled *Prehispanic Source Materials for the Study of Philippine History* has become a model of historical and historiographical criticism in Philippine historical studies. The article at hand discussed briefly a part of his dissertation, particularly the mythical code of Kalantiaw. This would somehow show that historical study is a continuous consideration and investigation of sources. The sources are bases of a meaningful past. There is therefore an absolute need to study them continuously.

Excerpt:

The Marco-Pavon Antigua Leyendas is the source, and the only source of the Kalatiaw Code. The Code therefore can be no more valid than the forgery which contains it. It is entitled "The 17 theses or laws of the Regulos in use in 150 since 1433," and was supposedly discovered in the possession of a Panay ruler in 1614, its original being still in the possession of on eDon Marcilio Orfila or Zaragoza in 1839. The figure "150" must mean 1150 in accordance with the usual custom of abbreviating dates and the example in the second chapter of Part II where the year of a Kalatiaw-built fortress is given as 433 instead of 1433. This makes the statement "in use in 1150 since 1433" ridiculous, of course, but no more ridiculous than the fact that the fort-building date of 1433 appears in a source itself dated 1137. Despite these peculiarities, however, Robertson published an English translation of the Code in apparent good faith in 1917, the same year Soncuya published the Spanish version.

The name of Kalatiaw himself appeared in print for the first time in a 1913 article by Manuel Artigas in the *Renacimiento Filipino*, "*Informes ineditos sobre Filipinas*," which made mention of "prehispanic civilization...a calendar, written laws, forts." Artigas was the head of the Filipiniana Section of the Philippine Library, and the year before, he had supplied footnotes to Marco's "Resena historica—which is a matter of fact, were much more scholarly than the book itself. The name is documented in no earlier source, though digno alba of Kalibo, in connection with the inauguration of the new province of Aklan in 1965, sought it in local folklore. I had tried to get stories or legends from the present generations of Aklanons living in Batan," he later wrote, "but not one old man can tell me now."

By this time, Kalantiaw was well on his way to becoming a National Hero. In 1966, Sol H. Gwekoh's "Hall of Fame" gave new biographic details—e.g., Datu Bendahara Kalantiaw was born in 1410, his father was Rajah Behendra Gulah, and he became the third Muslim ruler in

Panay at the age of 16. Then in 1970, Gregorio Zaide's *Great Filipinos in History* argued that his real name was Lakan Tiaw and gave a direct quote— "The law is above all men." The next year, the *Manila Bulletin* reported the celebration of the 538th anniversary of the promulgation of the Code on 8 December with the coronation of the Lakambini ni Kalantiyaw. Artist Carlos Valino, Jr., depicted the event itself in oil on canvas with the law-giver reading from a node of bamboo held vertically. The President of the Republic bestowed the Order of Kalatiaw on deserving justices, and a 30-centavo postage stamp was issued to commemorate his name. finally, lest some future generation forget a Filipino who "possessed the wisdom of Solomon, the fighting prowess of Genghis Khan, and the sagacious statesmanship of Asoka, "his Code was fittingly inscribed on brass in the Kalantiaw Shrine in Batan, Aklan.

The contents of the Code itself are no less peculiar. They were presumably promulgated by a central authority of sufficient power to put local chieftains to death for failure to enforce them, and prescribe 36 different offense irrationally group in 18 theses, punishable by 15 kinds of corporal and capital punishment bearing no relation to the nature or severity of the crimes.

Legalist commentators have not been wanting to cite the codes of Leviticus or Hammurabi for comparisons of severity, but what is incredible about the Kalantiaw Code is not its severity but its capricious viciousness. Its catalogue of punishments alone sound like the fantasies of some uninhibited sadist—plunging the hand into boiling water three times, cutting off the fingers, laceration with thorns, exposure to ants, swimming for three hours, drowning weighted with stones, beating to death or being burned, boiled, stoned, crushed with weights, cut to pieces, or thrown to crocodiles.

One wonders what pedagogical mischief has been done to three generation of Filipino youth by the belief that their ancestors suffered a society submissive to such a legal system.

The First People of Sulu

The following excerpt is from a story entitled “In Tau Nakauna” or the First People Sulu. This was documented by Maduh Damsani of the Coordinated Investigation of Sulu Culture (CISC), Efren Alawi of the Institute of Philippine Culture of the Ateneo de Manila and Gerard Rixhon, the Director of the CISC. This was originally narrated by Mullung (Muhammad Absari Salahuddin) of Anak Jati’ Indanan, Sulu. There are similarities to other legends and myths from the Philippines and Southeast Asia and these are useful in understanding somehow the unity of the ancient Filipinos, prior to the coming of Islam and Christianity.

Once upon a time, our islands were unnamed and uninhabited. One day, it happened that a war erupted in a country nearby. As the war ended, only five men managed to escape; two of them were tall with long noses and the three others were quite short. These five left their country and landed at one end of our island of Jolo where until then no people lived. Here they established their residence where occasionally they heard a saw wild horse and wild carabao. For food, they gathered what they found from the forest.

Sometime later, another war ravaged this same country. Again, five people were able to escape; this time, they were all women. They too, left and landed on our island and met the first five refugees. They were not 10 people, give men and five women. They lived together and begot children.

One day, one of the tall men with a long nose and one of the short men decided to go in search of some populated land. They left in a small banca which they paddled day and night. This trip took not only weeks but months.

After some time, they ran out of food so they ate what they could get from the sea. When they ran out of seafood, they found themselves scraping the bottom of their boat and eating what they could pick from the scrapings. They wanted badly to touch land but there was none in sight, no place to dock.

One night, at about two o’clock in the morning, their drifting boat suddenly stopped. They tried to get it moving by rocking it, but they could not move it an inch.

They waited for daylight and they discovered that they had run aground. “We are lucky,” one said. “Now we can go around and look for wood for new paddles. After all, there is no land without any trees.”

One of them with a small ax got off the boat and went looking for wood the badly needed paddles. With his small ax, he immediately started cutting a bamboo which was about 16 inches in diameter. He did not make any dent in it and a voice was heard. “Hey don’t hit me!” Since there was nobody, he lifted his ax but he heard the voice, “You don’t obey me, don’t hit me!” He

was afraid and at the third time he raised his ax he chose another spot to cut the bamboo. This time there was no sound. He fell the bamboo slowly. As he split the bamboo, a discovered a beautiful woman inside.

The lady in the bamboo told him that she was there hiding from a prophet who she refused to marry after learning that the life of a prophet is not an easy one.

They proceeded to make their paddles and the man left in the banca was glad that there are now the three of them. They starting rowing until the second night when they once again reach land. In the morning, they found that they were on a rock why they called Bud Talipaw.

The tall man said that they should settle and make it their home. Not long after, the tall man made love to Tuwan Putli Indal Suga and they lived as a married couple. Of this union, seven children, all boys were born. As they grew big, their mother told the father, “Now that our seven boys have all reached maturity, we better plan for their future, decide where they will live and divide the land among them.

This is how the land was divided. Luuk was given to the son with black eyes; the Taglibi to the son with green eyes; Talipaw went to the son with brown eyes. The boy with blue eyes was given the trading center (Now Jolo town) while the son with the greenish eyes got Lipid and the son with the white eyes Parang. Finally, the son with the yellow eyes received Sawaki. These were the first seven men born in sulu, the people of Sulu, Lupa’ Sug as it was called. The name Islam was to be added later when the Muslim faith spread to this part of the world.